

A-level

ENVIRONMENTAL SCIENCE

Paper 2 - Generated practice paper Set 20

Mark scheme

120 marks: Questions 1-10 (95 marks) plus one essay from Question 11 (25 marks).

Marking guidance

- The number in brackets after each marking point is the mark it earns; the note above the points says how many are needed.
- Where a question asks for a fixed number of points (eg *two reasons*), credit only the first points given.
- Alternative correct wording and other relevant, accurate points are credited.
- For levels-of-response questions, first determine the level using the descriptors, then position the mark within the level using the indicative content.
- Calculations: credit correct working (method marks) even if the final answer is wrong; incorrect answers with no working score 0.

Textbook references: every question below cites the printed page numbers in R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018) from which the content is drawn, together with the AQA 7447 specification reference.

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
01.1	<i>Any 4 from the points below - 1 mark each, maximum 4.</i> • Copying the structural / functional adaptations of living organisms in the design of manufactured items (1) • Aircraft wingtip fins copied from splayed wingtip feathers of soaring birds, reducing turbulence and fuel use (1) • Humpback whale flipper tubercles copied on ship rudders and wind turbine blades (tighter turns, rotation at lower wind speeds) (1) • Shark skin ridges reducing friction / bacterial adhesion (surface coatings, hospital surfaces) (1) • Termite mound convection copied for natural ventilation of buildings; hollow strutted bird bones in lightweight roofs; gecko toe adhesion; burr hooks - Velcro; lotus leaf self-cleaning glass; spider silk for airbags / body armour; bat / dolphin echolocation - ultrasound scanners (1)	4
01.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Plants produce toxic chemicals (eg alkaloids) to defend themselves against herbivores; in controlled doses these affect human physiology (1) • Examples: morphine / codeine from poppies; quinine from cinchona bark (malaria); aspirin from willow bark; taxol from yew (cancers); diosgenin from Mexican yam (contraceptives, cortisone) (1) • Animal examples accepted: AZT from a marine sponge (HIV), shark liver lipids (tumours) (1)	3
01.3	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Only a very small proportion of species have been studied for medicinal substances so unknown species may contain valuable chemicals (1) • Conserving the habitat protects all its species, including those not yet investigated (and their interdependent relationships) (1)	2

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
01.4	<i>1 mark.</i> - Squid giant nerve cells - nerve function / heart disease, stroke; - marsupials (kangaroo, wallaby pouch) - embryo development; hippo skin secretion - sunscreen / burns; sea urchin embryos - teratogen testing; armadillo - leprosy; marine sponge proteins - transplant rejection (1)	1
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 10-15; AQA spec 3.1.2.1.1-3.1.2.1.2.	
02.1	<i>Up to 6 marks in total; award marks in proportion to the completeness of each point.</i> - Non-indigenous species (Sitka spruce from North America) chosen for fast growth and pest resistance; indigenous wildlife's needs for food, pollination, seed dispersal and habitat are not met (up to 2) - Single species: easy planting, thinning and felling over large areas; but each tree species supports its own community so few species overall (up to 2) - Close planting makes trees compete for light so they grow tall and straight (good timber) but shades out ground flora and the species that depend on them (up to 2) - Simple age structure: uniform size makes management easy but gives little variety of light, temperature, wind; no old trees or dead wood for invertebrates and woodpeckers (up to 2) - Mixed woodland: varied niches, stratification, dead wood, indigenous trees each with their own dependent species (up to 2)	6
02.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> - Trees are felled when income will be greatest - approaching full size when the growth rate starts to decline (1) - Continuing to grow them ties up land and capital for little extra timber; natural forests keep old and dead trees (1)	2
02.3	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> - Industrial society replaced species-specific uses (baskets, fencing, charcoal, tool handles) with large-scale uses: chipboard, plywood, pulp (1) - Wood fuel replaced by fossil fuels / electricity; so traditional management declined and woods became uniform (1)	2
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 365-367; AQA spec 3.5.3.2.	
03.1	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> - No major temperature extremes; regular water supply with no pronounced dry season; deep fertile soils built by leaf litter and root binding; strong seasonality (1) - Deciduous canopy present spring to autumn shades the floor during the best growing temperatures (1) - Bluebells, snowdrops, lesser celandine grow and flower early in spring before the trees leaf (1) - Winter food shortage causes animals to hibernate (dormice), store food or migrate (1)	4

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
03.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Long time for species to colonise; some woodland plants colonise very slowly so their presence (ancient woodland indicators) shows the wood is old (1) • Natural woodland has trees of all ages with clearings where old trees died, giving varied light and dead wood habitats (1) • A new plantation has a single-age dense canopy with low light and few niches until trees start to die (over 200 years) (1)	3
03.3	<i>Any 3 from the points below - 1 mark each, maximum 3.</i> • Clearance for farmland, plantations, urban development, roads, mineral extraction (1) • Fragmentation isolating remaining woods so populations cannot move between them and are vulnerable (1) • Management change: end of coppicing so woods become uniform and dark; replacement by conifer monocultures (1) • Overgrazing by deer preventing regeneration; introduced pathogens (ash dieback) (1)	3
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 50-52; AQA spec 3.1.2.3.4.	
04.1	<i>2 marks for each point (partial credit for a partly correct point).</i> • EDGE: Evolutionarily Distinct and Globally Endangered - few close relatives, often the last species of their genus / family (Bactrian camel, pygmy hippo, northern bald ibis); loss would remove a unique branch of evolution / genes (2) • Endemic: found in only one area (often islands - Galapagos, Madagascar, Seychelles: Aldabra giant tortoise, red ruffed lemur); if lost locally there is no population elsewhere to recolonise (2) • Keystone: disproportionately important for the structure of the community relative to its abundance - predation of dominant species, seed dispersal, habitat creation (jaguar, forest elephants keeping paths and water holes open, wolves, beavers); losing them causes loss of many other species (2) • Flagship: high public profile (tiger, panda, elephant, orang-utan) raising funds and support that also protects the whole habitat and less charismatic species (fungi, bats, moths) (2)	8
04.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • A fragmented population may consist of isolated groups each too small to be viable (resources, inbreeding) even if total numbers are large (1) • A species confined to a single area (eg bonobos in one country) is vulnerable to any local change / conflict, unlike chimpanzees spread across many countries (1)	2
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 28-29; AQA spec 3.1.2.3.1.	

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
05.1	<i>Up to 4 marks in total; award marks in proportion to the completeness of each point.</i> • Success: Cactoblastis moth introduced from South America controlled prickly pear cactus in Australia; Encarsia parasitic wasps control greenhouse whitefly (up to 2) • Problems: cane toads introduced to Australia to control sugar cane beetles did not control them but ate many other species and are toxic to predators; rosy wolfsnail introduced to Polynesia to control African land snails ate endemic Partulid snails (48 species extinct); harlequin ladybirds introduced to Europe eat native ladybirds (up to 2) • Lesson: control agents should be specialist feeders on the pest (up to 2)	4
05.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Release an artificial sex scent attracting males (or females) of the pest species (1) • Used to monitor when the pest arrives so pesticide is timed correctly, or (in enclosed greenhouses) to trap enough of one sex to prevent breeding (1)	2
05.3	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Regular low doses kill only the most sensitive bacteria so resistant strains survive and multiply (1) • Agricultural use exceeds medical use, so resistance spreads (1) • Resistant zoonotic bacteria (E. coli, Salmonella, Campylobacter) can transfer to humans and are harder to treat; hence reduced use of antibiotics is a sustainability goal (1)	3
05.4	<i>1 mark.</i> • Grow nectar-rich flowering plants alongside crops; restrict pesticides harmful to bees / spray when not in flower; introduce bee hives (1)	1
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 316-320; AQA spec 3.5.1.1.	
06.1	<i>2 marks for each point (partial credit for a partly correct point).</i> • Carnivores fed pellets of sandeels, herring, anchovy; overfishing sandeels reduces puffins and terns; reduced by more plant protein / vegetable oil in pellets or farming herbivores (tilapia) (2) • High density spreads lice (which spread to wild fish) and infections; pesticides (organophosphates, pyrethroids, hydrogen peroxide) kill wildlife; antibiotics breed resistant bacteria; reduced by lower densities, single-age tanks with flow from young to old, wrasse as biological control, warm-water washes, circulating flow (2) • Escaped farmed fish breed with wild fish introducing disadvantageous genes (bright colour), or non-indigenous escapees colonise as predators / competitors; reduced by better cage design, sterile triploid fish (pressure-treated eggs), species that cannot breed locally (Japanese oysters in UK) (2) • Faeces and uneaten food decompose causing deoxygenation under cages; reduced by monitored feeding, siting cages in strong currents, effluent treatment / reed beds for freshwater farms, IMTA with seaweed and shellfish absorbing wastes (2)	8

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
06.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Predators are killed under licence to protect stock, reducing wild populations of protected / valued species (1) • Better cage designs, netting, fencing, bird scarers exclude predators without killing (1)	2
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 356-359; AQA spec 3.5.2.3.	
07.1	<i>A correct final answer (with unit where asked) scores full marks. If the answer is wrong, award 1 mark for each correct step of working shown.</i> • $600 + (90 + 150) - (220 + 80) = 540$ (1) • Stock fell by 60 so the catch exceeds the MSY / unsustainable (1)	2
07.2	<i>1 mark for the correct answer.</i> • $A + G - M = 90 + 150 - 80 = 160$ (1)	1
07.3	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Catch is landed and weighed at ports so it is recorded (1) • Other terms need data on fish in the sea: populations are mobile (crossing national boundaries), very unevenly distributed (1) • Representative sampling of a large enough proportion of the area is impractical / expensive; survival of eggs and larvae varies greatly between years (1)	3
07.4	<i>2 marks for each point (partial credit for a partly correct point).</i> • CPUE: if more effort (boat-days, engine power, net size) is needed to land the same catch, the population is declining even though total catch is maintained; a better measure than catch size which technology can prop up (2) • Falling mean size / age (from scale or otolith growth rings) shows older adults are being removed faster than replaced and the catch depends on small young fish (2)	4
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 349-351; AQA spec 3.5.2.2.	
08.1	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Hydrosere (1) • Single-celled algae (and floating plants) - arrive on birds / insects / from soil (1)	2
08.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> • Pioneers and later plants grow and die; dead organic matter plus sediment washed in fill the pond so water becomes shallower (1) • As depth falls rooted plants (pondweeds then emergent reeds with leaves above water) can anchor and colonise; emergents shade submerged plants which die out (1) • Sediment / soil accumulates and becomes able to support larger plants; water-tolerant trees (willow, alder) colonise the waterlogged soil (1) • Transpiration by trees and further sediment dry the soil and make it aerobic so oak can colonise; the denser canopy shades out smaller plants (1) • Each community changes abiotic conditions (depth, light, nutrients, oxygen), making it suitable for the next colonisers which out-compete them; conditions become less extreme and biotic factors increasingly important (1)	5

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
08.3	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> - Starting conditions (bare rock vs open water) differ but each stage makes conditions less extreme and builds soil / organic matter (1) - The final community is controlled by the regional climate (temperature, water availability), which is the same for both - climatic climax (eg oak woodland in the UK) (1)	2
08.4	<i>1 mark.</i> Lichens and algae colonise bare rock (extreme temperatures, no soil, little water); rock fragments and dead organic matter accumulate; mosses, then grasses and ferns as thin soil forms; wind-dispersed trees (birch) then animal-dispersed (oak, beech) (1)	1
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 73-76; AQA spec 3.1.3.3.	
09.1	<i>Any 2 from the points below - 1 mark each, maximum 2.</i> - Hydrological cycle (1) - Carbon cycle (1) - Nitrogen cycle (1) - Atmospheric circulation (1) - Thermohaline circulation (1) - Photosynthesis (1)	2
09.2	<i>1 mark for each point.</i> - Enzymes reduce the activation energy of reactions (1) - So reactions such as photosynthesis, decomposition and nitrogen fixation do not need high temperatures (1)	2
09.3	<i>Any 1 from the points below - 1 mark each, maximum 1.</i> - Haber process (nitrogen fixation) (1) - Incineration of wastes (decomposition) (1) - Many manufacturing processes (1)	1
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 373; AQA spec 3.6.2.	

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
10.1	Levels of response Level 3 (7-9 marks): Answer is comprehensive, relevant and logically structured. Shows detailed knowledge and understanding of the relevant scientific ideas and applies them accurately to the context. Evaluation/analysis is well supported by evidence and a clear judgement or conclusion is reached. Level 2 (4-6 marks): Answer is mostly relevant and shows some structure. Knowledge and understanding of relevant ideas is sound but application to the context or evaluation may be incomplete or lack detail. A judgement may be made but is not fully supported. Level 1 (1-3 marks): Answer is basic, with limited structure. Some relevant knowledge is shown but there are omissions or errors. Little application to the context and little or no evaluation. 0 marks: No relevant content. Indicative content (credit other relevant, accurate points) • In-situ: species remain in natural conditions with the whole community and inter-species relationships; protected areas (SSSI, NNR, SAC, SPA, Ramsar, MCZ), land ownership, agri-environment schemes, habitat creation and design (area, shape, corridors, diversity), management of abiotic and biotic factors, plagioclimax maintenance, population control, reintroductions and rewilding (Yellowstone wolves, Scottish beavers) • Limits of in-situ: external threats (pollution, climate change), enforcement, cost, conflicts with land use, small fragmented populations • Ex-situ: captive breeding when in-situ is impossible or insufficient; selection criteria; difficulties keeping and breeding (habitat size, food, relationships, breeding triggers, group dynamics, gene pool / inbreeding, hybridisation); techniques (stud books, cryopreservation, AI, embryo transfer, micropropagation, cloning); seed banks; successes (Hawaiian goose, Iberian lynx, red kite, large blue) • Limits of ex-situ: expensive, few species, loss of wild behaviour, small gene pools, release requires suitable habitat and post-release support (hard vs soft release, monitoring) • Judgement: ex-situ is a temporary safeguard / support that only succeeds if in-situ habitat exists to return to; both needed, in-situ fundamental	9
	Model answer - Level 3 (8 marks)	
	In-situ conservation keeps a species in its natural habitat with the whole community it depends on - food species, pollinators, predators and the abiotic conditions it is adapted to. It is delivered through protected areas such as SSSIs, NNRs, SACs, SPAs, Ramsar sites and Marine Conservation Zones, land ownership by conservation bodies, agri-environment schemes and habitat creation and management. Its weaknesses are that external threats such as pollution and climate change cross reserve boundaries, enforcement and cost, conflicts with other land uses, and the fact that many populations are already small and fragmented.	

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
	Ex-situ captive breeding is used when in-situ protection is impossible or insufficient. It is hard: animals need enough space, the right food, social groupings and breeding triggers, and small founder populations risk inbreeding and hybridisation, which studbooks, artificial insemination and embryo transfer help to manage. It is expensive, works for few species, and captive animals may lose wild behaviour; release succeeds only where suitable habitat exists and with soft release and post-release monitoring.	
	The two are not alternatives. Ex-situ methods are a temporary safeguard that can rescue a species from extinction, as with the Arabian oryx, but they only succeed if there is protected habitat to return to. In-situ conservation is therefore fundamental and ex-situ a support for it; the relative importance depends on how close to extinction the species is.	
	Weaker answer - Level 2 (5 marks)	
	In-situ conservation means protecting species in their natural habitat, for example in nature reserves and national parks. This is good because the species stays in the wild with the other species it needs. Ex-situ conservation means captive breeding in zoos and then releasing the animals back into the wild. This can save species that are nearly extinct but it is expensive and animals may not survive when released. Both methods are important and are often used together.	
	What makes the difference	
	• Level 2 defines both approaches correctly but Level 3 gives specific mechanisms (types of protected area, breeding difficulties, release methods) and named examples.	
	• Level 3 weighs the limitations of each approach explicitly; Level 2 gives one limitation for ex-situ only.	
	• 'Both are important' is not a judgement about <i>relative</i> importance; Level 3 explains why in-situ is fundamental and when ex-situ matters most.	
10.2	<i>1 mark.</i> • Restoring natural processes / communities to a habitat changed by humans, often by reintroducing missing (keystone) species and removing human management such as grazing (1)	1
	Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 32-49; AQA spec 3.1.2.3.3-3.1.2.3.4.	

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
11.1	Discuss the extent to which the resources and services provided by other species justify the conservation of biodiversity. Levels of response Level 5 (21-25 marks): Comprehensive and detailed knowledge and understanding drawn from across the specification, applied accurately to the question. Argument is coherent, well-structured and supported by a wide range of relevant, well-chosen examples and quantitative detail where appropriate. Interconnections between topics are made explicitly and a clear, justified conclusion is reached. Level 4 (16-20 marks): Detailed knowledge and understanding with good application to the question. Argument is logically organised with relevant examples; some links between different areas of the specification are made. Conclusions are drawn but may be less fully justified. Level 3 (11-15 marks): Sound knowledge and understanding, mostly applied to the question. Some structure and relevant examples, but coverage may be uneven or descriptive rather than analytical. Limited linking of topics. Level 2 (6-10 marks): Basic knowledge and understanding with partial relevance. Answer is largely descriptive with few examples and limited structure; some errors or omissions. Level 1 (1-5 marks): Limited, fragmented knowledge with little relevance to the question. Little structure; examples absent or inappropriate. 0 marks: No relevant content. Indicative content (students are not expected to cover all of these; credit other relevant material) • Resources: wood, fibres, oils, fuels, food; new food species (morama bean, yeheb, perennial maize, Kernza, bison, eland) and their adaptations • Biomimetics: wing-tip feathers, whale tubercles, shark skin, termite mounds, bird bones, gecko adhesion, burrs, lotus, spider silk • Medicines: poppies, cinchona, willow, yew (taxol), Mexican yam, sponges (AZT), sharks; few species yet studied; physiological research (marsupials, hippo, sponges) • Genetic resources: crop wild relatives, Vavilov centres, gene pools and inbreeding • Ecosystem services: atmospheric regulation, hydrological cycle, biogeochemical cycles, soil maintenance; interspecies relationships - food, pollination (Darwin's orchid), seed dispersal, habitat provision • Evaluation: economic vs intrinsic / moral arguments; services unnoticed because of dynamic equilibrium; unknown future value; justified conclusion Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 10-19; AQA spec 3.1.2.1.	25

Question	Marking guidance	Marks
11.2	Using tropical coral reefs as an example, discuss how the ecological features of a habitat determine both its importance and its vulnerability to human activities. Levels of response Level 5 (21-25 marks): Comprehensive and detailed knowledge and understanding drawn from across the specification, applied accurately to the question. Argument is coherent, well-structured and supported by a wide range of relevant, well-chosen examples and quantitative detail where appropriate. Interconnections between topics are made explicitly and a clear, justified conclusion is reached. Level 4 (16-20 marks): Detailed knowledge and understanding with good application to the question. Argument is logically organised with relevant examples; some links between different areas of the specification are made. Conclusions are drawn but may be less fully justified. Level 3 (11-15 marks): Sound knowledge and understanding, mostly applied to the question. Some structure and relevant examples, but coverage may be uneven or descriptive rather than analytical. Limited linking of topics. Level 2 (6-10 marks): Basic knowledge and understanding with partial relevance. Answer is largely descriptive with few examples and limited structure; some errors or omissions. Level 1 (1-5 marks): Limited, fragmented knowledge with little relevance to the question. Little structure; examples absent or inappropriate. 0 marks: No relevant content. Indicative content (students are not expected to cover all of these; credit other relevant material) • Ecological features: cnidarian polyps, cilia, nematocysts, zooxanthellae symbiosis, limestone skeletons building reefs, complex structure and food web; specific abiotic requirements (temperature, light, salinity, low turbidity) • Importance: quarter of marine species, fisheries, medicines, carbon sink, erosion protection, tourism • Vulnerability: narrow abiotic tolerance means sensitivity to warming, acidification, sedimentation, nutrient pollution, oil, bleaching; slow growth so slow recovery; physical damage; overfishing and food-web effects (crown of thorns); introduced species; dependence on mangroves and seagrass • Conservation: MPAs, No Take Zones, fishing controls, tourism management, protection of linked habitats, CITES • Comparison with other habitats (rainforests, mangroves, Antarctica) where relevant • Evaluation of local vs global threats and justified conclusion Source: R. Genn, Environmental Science A level AQA (Insight & Perspective, 2018), pp. 57-62; AQA spec 3.1.2.3.4.	25